CellForge: Language-Model Agents as Direct Authors of Neural Networks

First results on gradient-free construction of an OCR model

CellForge project*

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Abstract

We ask whether large language model (LLM) agents can build useful neural networks by *directly writing* their weights, biases and wiring, with no gradient-based fitting of the resulting artifact. CellForge gives an orchestrator LLM and scoped *maker* agents a recursive graph representation (primitive cells composed into arbitrarily nested, shareable bundles with optional conditional dispatch), atomic validated transactions, a versioned development harness, and an append-only evidence record. Final evaluation runs on a separate machine under a separate account with freshly generated cases for every evaluation. In a first round on variable-length digit-string recognition, four independently authored artifacts—including one written with no metric feedback at all—read in-distribution final cases perfectly (exact match 1.000, $n = 2000$). Under distribution shift, they diverge: the most robust artifact reads 73.8% of strings in an unseen font and 72.3% under size shift, while the others reach 38–57%. A gradient-trained slot-MLP control reaches 83.8% in distribution but 10.0% on the unseen font; random direct-edit search reaches 0%. These results establish that LLM authors can construct working visual recognizers without gradient training; they do not yet establish robustness, scaling, or superiority over well-designed gradient-trained models.

1 Introduction

Neural networks are almost always *fitted*: an optimizer adjusts parameters to reduce a loss on data. LLMs, however, can read images, reason about mechanisms, and write precise numerical specifications. This suggests a different construction process: an LLM *authors* a network the way an engineer writes a program, observes its failures, and revises it. The author, not gradient descent, is the optimizer.

CellForge is an experimental system for testing this idea rigorously. Its primary question is:

> Can LLM agents discover useful neural computations, their recursive organization, and better ways of developing them, using evidence-backed memory and direct numerical and structural edits, producing an offline image-to-text artifact that improves on independent evaluation?

Scope and non-goals. CellForge tests whether LLM agents can author neural network weights directly, without gradient training. The artifact studied here is an offline image-to-text recognizer. It has no language understanding, dialogue, speech capability, or general intelligence; chat and speech interfaces are out of scope for this work.

*Orchestrator and maker agents: Claude (Anthropic) running in Claude Code. Project owner: [name to be supplied].

Motivation and long-term aim. The project owner's long-term aim is more ambitious: to work toward general intelligence, eventually a system one can converse with, with visual input and later speech, whose computation is constructed by LLM authors rather than fitted. We state this aim to explain the design choices (modality-agnostic decoder, recursive reusable components, staged vocabularies), and we keep it strictly separate from our claims. Section 9 lists what would need to be demonstrated, in order, for that aim to become plausible, and the risks at each stage. Nothing in the present results bears on general intelligence.

Contributions. (1) A recursive cell/bundle IR with lazy conditional dispatch, content hashing, and behaviour-preserving wrap/unwrap refactors; (2) a transaction and governance design that makes every parameter change traceable to an accepted LLM proposal and separates development feedback from independent final evaluation; (3) first measurements of LLM-authored OCR artifacts against gradient-trained and random-search controls, including distribution-shift tests.

2 Related work

Architecture search composes motifs hierarchically [1] and evolves topologies and components [2]; both fit weights by training. Our evidence memory adapts ideas from visual retrieval-augmented generation [3, 4, 5]. We are not aware of prior work in which LLMs author all weights of a working recognizer without fitting, but a wider prior-art review is required before any novelty claim.

3 System

3.1 Representation

A *cell* computes $h = \sigma(W_1 x + b_1)$, $y = W_2 h + b_2$ over the last axis of its input. A *bundle* is a typed DAG whose nodes are parameter-free operations, parameter tensors, cells, other bundles, or a top-1 `dispatch` among bundles; unselected branches do not execute. The same representation is used at every depth; definitions may be shared, and parameter sharing is explicit. Recursive template references and exponential expansion are rejected at validation. A model has an `encode` bundle (pixels $\rightarrow$ memory) and a `step` bundle (memory, step index, previous token, state $\rightarrow$ logits, state), driven by a bounded greedy decoder that stops on the model's own EOS.

3.2 Construction protocol

Makers submit JSON proposals of atomic operations (set parameter by explicit value or by a deterministic expansion of an author-written pattern such as ASCII art; put/delete definitions; wrap/unwrap). Proposals are validated against their exact base hash, executed on sample inputs, and, for pure refactors, tested for exact behavioural equivalence. Makers may not run code that computes weights from data, may not script search loops, and receive development feedback only through a budgeted `dev-eval` command.

3.3 Evaluation boundary

Development data, a fixed reference anchor, and all diagnostics are author-visible and therefore development feedback. Final cases are rendered on a separate server by an `evaluator` account with a fresh secret seed per evaluation, excluding (for strings of length ≥ 4) every string author

Artifact	iid	unseen font	size shift	length 9
Authored, iterative A	1.000	**0.738**	**0.723**	1.000
Authored, iterative B	1.000	0.382	0.379	0.000
Authored, one-shot	1.000	0.427	0.453	1.000
Authored, flat	1.000	0.407	0.570	1.000
Gradient slot-MLP, 400	0.057	0.054	0.050	0.000
Gradient slot-MLP, 20k	0.838	0.100	0.419	0.000*
Random edits, 20k evals	0.000	0.000	0.000	0.000

Table 1: Exact-match rate on independent final cases (fresh seeds). Wilson 95% intervals are ± 0.03 or narrower at these n; CER in the project log. *The slot-MLP has eight character slots by construction.

agents ever saw; only aggregates leave the machine. The unseen-font split uses a font file that is never present on the authoring machine.

4 Experiment 1: digit strings

Protocol. 32×128 grayscale, 1–8 digits, DejaVu Sans Mono 20 px, horizontal offset 2–14 px, vertical jitter ±2 px, Gaussian noise $\sigma \leq 0.03$. Final splits: iid ($n = 2000$), unseen font Liberation Mono ($n = 1000$), size 18–22 px ($n = 1000$), length 9 ($n = 500$).

Arms. From an EOS-constant bootstrap: two independent iterative makers with recursive bundles (25 dev-eval budget each), a flat-graph maker (no sub-bundles), and a one-shot maker (validation only, no metrics). Controls: a gradient-trained slot-MLP (Adam, 400 or 20,000 training images) and (1+1) random direct-edit hill climbing (25 or 20,000 evaluations), all scored through the same reference evaluator.

Results. Table 1. All four authored artifacts are perfect in distribution, using two or fewer development evaluations each; the in-distribution task is therefore saturated and does not discriminate construction arms. Every maker converged on the same family of mechanism—vertical alignment, left-edge detection, a fixed 12 px character pitch, and hand-typed 15×12 glyph templates—yet small design decisions produced large robustness differences: artifact A's normalized agreement score and ±3 px search tolerance generalized best; artifact B hard-coded eight character cells and failed every 9-digit string.

What the results do and do not show. They show that LLM authors can construct compact recognizers (about two thousand parameters for artifact A) without gradient fitting, and that the one-shot author needed no feedback to reach perfect in-distribution accuracy. They do *not* show a difference between arms (one construction run per arm), robustness to real-world text, or superiority over gradient training in general: our control lacks translation invariance, and a gradient-trained convolutional network would likely be perfect in distribution. The makers' templates came from *looking at* development images; we regard the author's visual perception as the channel through which learning happens in this system, and we report it as such rather than as discovery from first principles.

Model	bpc	top-1	gramm.	gramm.+novel	experts	params
Ladder L1	0.6796	.810	.966	.788	6	278k
Ladder L2	**0.6776**	.809	**.997**	.884	60	1.69M
Ladder L3	0.6790	.809	.940	.804	4	898k
Open O1	0.6797	.809	.955	.839	–	1.31M
Open O2	0.6808	.809	.939	.775	–	1.56M
Gradient MLP (window 8)	0.824	.780	.201	.135	–	74k
Trigram counts	1.383	.617	0	0	–	66k
Uniform	5.000	0	0	0	–	32
Generator entropy: ≤ 0.6734 bpc (summed choice bits, upper bound)						

Table 2: Independent final evaluation on 1,000 fresh documents (bootstrap 95% intervals on bpc are about ±0.002). "Gramm." is the fraction of complete generated sentences accepted by the private grammar; "+novel" additionally requires the sentence to be absent from the authors' training text.

5 Experiment 2: hierarchical mixture-of-experts language models

The project owner judged digit recognition too easy a test of the intended cell→cluster→expert design, so the second experiment asks authors to build a character-level language model, with routing and recurrent state doing real work.

Task. Text comes from a private English-like grammar (12 nouns, 12 verbs, agreement that must survive relative clauses such as "the cat that the dogs see runs", adjectives, prepositions, adverbs, ", and" coordination) held only on the evaluation server. Authors see 2,000 sampled documents and 300 development documents, never the grammar. Vocabulary: 32 tokens. The model receives the last eight characters, the position, and its own state, and outputs next-character logits. Scoring is bits per character (bpc) under teacher forcing on fresh documents, plus the grammaticality of 200 free-running samples (temperature 0.8) judged by the private recognizer. Authors may read text but may not run code that counts or estimates anything from it.

Arms. Three independent authors in an enforced ladder profile (cells only inside clusters, clusters inside experts, a router whose scores drive a lazy top-1 dispatch among at least two experts, checked by a validator), and two authors in an open profile with any organization and optional routing. Controls fitted from data on the same 2,000 documents: uniform, n-gram count models, and a gradient-trained MLP over the same eight-character window (Adam, 74k parameters).

Results. Table 2. All five authored models reach 0.678–0.681 bpc, within 0.004 bpc (under 1%) of the generator's entropy, with 94–99.7% grammatical generations, against 0.824 bpc and 20% for the gradient MLP. The authored models keep singular/plural state across nested clauses in a stack held in recurrent state; the fixed-window MLP cannot. The best model (L2) has 60 routed experts, one per grammatical situation, and only 3 of 60 sampled sentences violate the grammar.

Interpretation and limits. The task is exhausted: every author read roughly 40 documents, wrote the closed grammar down, hand-tallied rates, and compiled it into tables and state machines. This shows the machinery (state, recursion tracking, dispatch among tens of experts) works end to end at 0.3–1.7M authored parameters. It does *not* show that the ladder helps: an open, unrouted model (O1) matched the ladder with three feedback runs against five to eleven, and the ladder

Artifact	Final accuracy	Wilson 95% interval
Authored A1	0.4655	[0.4437, 0.4874]
Authored A2	0.4360	[0.4144, 0.4578]
Authored A3	0.3410	[0.3205, 0.3621]
Authored two-parent crossover	0.5295	[0.5076, 0.5513]
Authored three-parent crossover	0.5360	[0.5141, 0.5578]
Gradient logistic	0.3355	[0.3151, 0.3565]
Gradient MLP, 100 hidden units	0.5940	[0.5723, 0.6153]
Gradient MLP, 500 hidden units	0.5995	[0.5779, 0.6208]

Table 3: MNIST-1D independent final accuracy; $n = 2000$ per artifact. The MLP controls were not tuned to match published MNIST-1D baselines.

authors were required to use routing the task does not need. It also does not show that authoring scales to data whose generator cannot be read off from a few dozen samples; the next experiment moves to real text. Authoring cost (author-reported): 176–231k tokens per run.

6 Experiment 3: MNIST-1D direct authoring and crossover

MNIST-1D provides a procedural ten-class classification task on 40-sample signals. We used 4,000 development-training signals, a separate 1,000-signal development evaluation set, and a 1,000-signal reference anchor. Independent final evaluation used 2,000 newly generated signals per artifact with an operator-side secret seed. Makers were instructed not to inspect the installed generator source, although this restriction was procedural rather than technically enforced.

Round A and controls. Three independent makers started from the same zero-logit bootstrap under harness version 1. They wrote numerical filters and classifier wiring without gradient fitting and used respectively four, five, and four development evaluations. Table 3 reports the final results alongside gradient-trained logistic and untuned MLP controls trained on the same development training split. The strongest authored parent exceeds the logistic control but trails both MLP controls. The three makers' class-specific strengths and failures differ substantially; three runs are insufficient to estimate a typical authoring outcome.

Evolutionary crossover. A fourth maker imported the independently authored A1 and A2 filter banks into a child graph and authored a combining rule. After five development evaluations, the accepted child scored 0.5295 on fresh final signals, an absolute gain of 0.064 over the better parent. This is one selected offspring, not evidence of a general evolutionary advantage; the child uses both parents and approximately 29.7 million multiply–accumulates over the final set, versus 13.3 million for A1 and 16.4 million for A2. A three-parent extension scored 0.572 on the development set and 0.557 on the reference anchor ($n = 1000$ each), then 0.5360 on a separate fresh-seed final set ($n = 2000$). Its apparent 0.0065 gain over the two-parent child is not reliable: those final evaluations used different random seeds, their confidence intervals overlap substantially, and the third parent raises final-set computation from 29.7 to 39.3 million multiply–accumulates.

Harness evolution status. A version-2 diagnostic plugin that reports class confusion and wrong-prediction margins was validated and activated in a separate run. Fresh-maker Round B under that harness has not been evaluated, so no before/after harness-effect claim is possible yet.

Failure-informed mutations on real text. In a separate delegated real-text model, three isolated mutations reused settings from earlier failed proposals. The first worsened development bpc from 2.4748 to 2.4826. A trigram-donor change scored 2.4746 bpc, effectively tied with its parent; an after-period-space specialist scored 2.4743 bpc. These comparisons used the 165-document development set. The specialist was accepted on a separate eight-expert branch; its reference-anchor bpc was 2.46152 versus 2.46236 for the seven-expert parent over 155,239 tokens, with identical 0.5220 top-1 accuracy. Both checks are development feedback, and neither establishes a final or frontier-benchmark gain. The main branch remains seven-expert.

7 Experiment 4: frontier multiple-choice probes (preliminary)

We adapted character-level language models to multiple-choice scoring by summing next-character negative log likelihood over each answer choice, and also report length-normalized scoring. The model vocabulary lowercases text and omits many capitals, digits, and symbols, so these probes have imperfect character coverage. MMLU test, ARC-Challenge test, and HellaSwag validation were staged on the private evaluation server. GPQA was unavailable because access requires dataset authorization.

The first complete sweep contains a synthetic-grammar authored model and three real-text controls, each on a fixed 1,000-item subset per benchmark. Their length-normalized accuracies respectively span 0.243–0.266 on MMLU, 0.224–0.248 on ARC-Challenge, and 0.230–0.264 on HellaSwag. These values are around the four-choice chance rate of 0.25 and provide no evidence of frontier benchmark competence. The synthetic model was trained for a different grammar, and the real-text models here are unigram, trigram, and a small gradient MLP; results for the newly authored real-text candidates remain pending. This probe should be interpreted as a stress test of transfer and of the scoring interface, not as a comparison to frontier language models. ARC-AGI-2 and structured tool-use evaluation are planned extensions; the current character models lack the grid-output and tool-action interfaces they require. An `arc-grid/1` scorer now validates grids of 1–30 cells per dimension with colors 0–9, accepts at most two candidates per test input, and computes exact task success with a Wilson interval. It passed a synthetic identity-task smoke check. No authored grid predictor exists, and no ARC-AGI-2 or tool-use scores are reported.

8 Limitations

Single font family in development; one run per arm; subagent token usage is self-reported; authors and orchestrator share an operating-system account locally (the final-evaluation boundary is physical, on a separate server, but the orchestrator has administrative access to it); the live visual-retrieval memory arm and the MNIST-1D harness-version comparison are not yet run. The MNIST-1D crossover has one independently tested child and no random-crossover control; its advantage may reflect selection and extra computation.

9 Roadmap beyond OCR

The path from this result toward the long-term aim requires, in order: robust alphanumeric recognition across unseen font families; real-world text lines competitive with a parameter-matched gradient-trained CNN (the critical go/no-go test, since authoring effort scales with case diversity rather than data); constructed sequence priors; measured component reuse across visual tasks; constructed algorithmic reasoning with length generalization; and only then language. The largest

risks are scale (capable language models have 10^8–10^{12} parameters, far beyond hand authoring, pushing toward weight *generators*) and provenance (linguistic competence in an authored model would be transferred from the author LLM's pretraining and must be reported as such).

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